Generous on Paper? De Jure Regularization, De Facto Documentation, and Migrant Welfare

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Abstract

Does a more generous migrant regularization regime lead to better welfare outcomes? I study this question by comparing Venezuelan migrants in Colombia and Peru using the 2024 LAPOP migrant surveys combined with nationally representative AmericasBarometer surveys of host populations. Contrary to the conventional expectation, the migrant–native gap in food insecurity is substantially larger in Colombia, despite its more generous statutory regularization regime, while the migrant penalty in formal employment is nearly identical across countries. The contrast coincides with large differences in effective policy coverage: in 2024, a much larger share of Venezuelan migrants in Colombia lacked any migration permit than in Peru. Differences in documentation coverage and employment account for most of the cross-country gap in food insecurity, whereas differences in migrant composition explain little. The results suggest that statutory generosity is a poor guide to migrant welfare unless it translates into broad documentation coverage and labour market integration. More generally, they highlight the importance of distinguishing de jure policy design from de facto implementation when evaluating regularization programmes..

JEL: F22, J15, J46, O15, O17. **Keywords:** forced migration, regularization, de facto policy, informality, food security, Venezuela.

*Bocconi University, Draft prepared July 2026. Data: LAPOP AmericasBarometer (Vanderbilt University); DANE (Colombia); INEI (Peru). All errors are mine. Replication code available from the author.

1 Introduction

The displacement of nearly 7.9 million Venezuelans is the largest forced migration in the history of the Western Hemisphere (R4V, 2025). Colombia and Peru became the two principal destinations, yet adopted markedly different regularization strategies. Colombia's *Estatuto Temporal de Protección para Venezolanos* (ETPV), introduced in 2021, granted eligible Venezuelans a ten-year legal status with the right to formal employment and was widely praised as a model of humanitarian protection (UN Network on Migration, 2023; AS/COA, 2024). Peru's permit system (PTP and later CPP) offered more limited legal protections and has generally been regarded as the less generous regime (MPI, 2024). If statutory legal status is the primary constraint on migrants' economic integration, welfare outcomes should be more favourable under Colombia's policy.

This paper documents a striking empirical puzzle. Using harmonized LAPOP surveys of Venezuelan migrants conducted in 2024 together with nationally representative AmericasBarometer surveys of host populations, I find that the migrant–native gap in food insecurity is substantially larger in Colombia than in Peru, despite Colombia's more generous legal framework. At the same time, the migrant penalty in formal employment is nearly identical across the two countries.

The evidence suggests that this apparent contradiction reflects the distinction between *de jure* policy design and *de facto* policy implementation. By 2024, 35% of surveyed Venezuelans in Colombia held no migration permit, compared with only 14% in Peru. This divergence is concentrated among recent arrivals: after Colombia closed general registration for the ETPV in late 2023, documentation rates fell sharply for post-2021 cohorts, whereas Peru's subsequent regularization process continued to incorporate newly arriving migrants. A decomposition of the cross-country welfare gap shows that differences in documentation coverage and employment account for most of the observed disparity in food insecurity, while differences in migrant composition explain relatively little.

The paper contributes to three related literatures through a common argument. A large literature shows that obtaining legal status improves migrants' labour market outcomes and well-being (Kossoudji & Cobb-Clark, 2002; Pinotti, 2017; Bahar et al., 2021; Ibáñez et al., 2025). More broadly, development research has long emphasized that statutory rules often diverge from their implementation in practice (Hallward-Driemeier & Pritchett, 2015; Pritchett et al., 2013; Andrews et al., 2017). Finally, recent work has documented the economic consequences of the Venezuelan displacement crisis across Latin America (Lebow, 2022, 2024; Delgado-Prieto, 2024; Groëger et al., 2024). Rather than asking whether legal status benefits migrants, this paper asks whether statutory generosity is an informative measure of a regularization programme's effectiveness. The evidence suggests that it is not: the welfare consequences of regularization depend not only on the rights a programme grants, but on the share of migrants it actually reaches.

The contribution is descriptive rather than causal. The cross-country comparisons identify robust differences in welfare and documentation coverage, but they do not establish that regularization policies caused those differences. Instead, the paper documents that the widely accepted ranking of the two regularization regimes reversed in practice by 2024 and shows that this reversal coincided with large differences in migrant welfare. More generally, the results illustrate the importance of distinguishing statutory policy from effective implementation when evaluating development policies.

2 Institutional Setting, Data, and Empirical Approach

2.1 Institutional setting

Colombia and Peru host the two largest populations displaced from Venezuela, with approximately 2.8 and 1.7 million Venezuelans respectively by late 2024 (R4V, 2025). Although the two countries are commonly portrayed as having opposite regularization strategies, the relevant distinction for this paper is not their statutory design but their effective coverage by 2024.

Colombia's *Estatuto Temporal de Protección para Venezolanos* (ETPV), introduced in 2021, granted eligible Venezuelans a ten-year temporary protection permit (PPT) with the right to work formally. However, eligibility was limited to migrants already present before the programme's registration deadlines, and general registration closed in November 2023. As a result, many recent arrivals were no longer able to obtain documentation through the programme.

Peru's regularization framework was less generous in legal terms, relying initially on the PTP and subsequently the CPP. However, Peru reopened regularization opportunities during 2023, allowing undocumented migrants to obtain legal status while Colombia's registration system had effectively closed to new applicants.

This contrast generates the paper's central comparison. Colombia offered broader rights to those covered by its programme, whereas Peru continued extending documentation to newly arriving migrants. The analysis asks which feature proved more relevant for migrants' welfare by the time of the 2024 surveys.

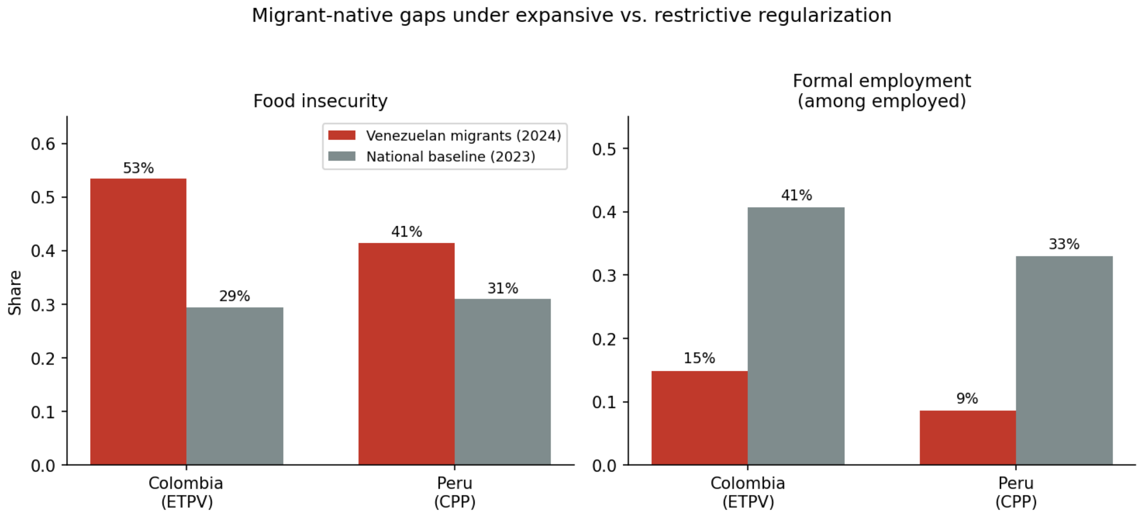

Figure 1: Migrant–native comparisons by host country. Migrants: LAPOP 2024 special surveys; national baselines: AmericasBarometer 2023. Weighted shares. Formality is measured among respondents in paid work.

2.1.1 Motivating fact: welfare gaps do not track statutory generosity

Figure 1 previews the puzzle using the harmonized surveys described below. Native food insecurity is similar in the two countries (29% and 31%), but Venezuelan migrants in Colombia are far more food-insecure (53%) than in Peru (41%). Formality baselines differ—41% of employed natives hold formal jobs in Colombia versus 33% in Peru—and migrants sit dramatically below natives in both (14.9% and 8.6%). Judged by distance from their hosts, migrants fare no better, and on food security substantially worse, under the generous regime.

3 Data

3.1 Surveys

I combine four surveys. The 2024 LAPOP special studies *Venezuelans in Colombia* (n=1,006) and *Venezuelans in Peru* (n=1,077) sampled Venezuelan-born adults using adaptive cluster sampling in high-concentration urban areas (Bogotá, Cúcuta, Medellín, Ipiales; Lima, Trujillo, Tumbes), with within-household last-birthday selection. (LAPOP, 2025). The 2023 AmericasBarometer national surveys of Colombia (n=1,503) and Peru (n=1,535) provide host-population baselines. The migrant instruments share 121 variables with each other and identically worded core items with the national surveys, verified against the official questionnaires.

Outcomes are *food insecurity* (FS2: the household ran out of food for lack of resources in the past three months) and *formal employment* (FORMAL: the current job carries pension contributions, asked of respondents in paid work). The migrant surveys additionally record *documentation status* (VDQ62: the specific permit held—PPT, PEP, citizenship, visas, salvoconducto in Colombia; CPP, carné de extranjería, PTP, visas in Peru—or none), *current activity* (VDQ52), *years of residence* (VDQ2), household size, and demographics. All estimates apply each survey's own sampling weights, normalized within survey; migrant-survey regressions cluster standard errors by design stratum where indicated.

Three measurement caveats. First, the migrant samples represent Venezuelans in high-concentration urban areas, not the national migrant population; the national baselines are nationally representative, so gap estimates should be read as urban-migrant-versus-national-host comparisons. Second, arrival timing is derived from integer years of residence (fieldwork centered on October 2024), so arrival "year" carries roughly ± 1 year of error, and the 2020–21 cohorts cannot be assigned cleanly to either side of the ETPV's January 2021 presence deadline—the analysis drops them where the distinction matters. Third, and possibly most importantly, the pooling of the surveys is asynchronous with the special studies taking place a little over a year after the national baselines [1].

3.2 External validation

Because the coverage results are the paper's core, I validate them against national statistical operations with entirely different designs. For Colombia, DANE's *Encuesta Pulso de la Migración* (EPM), a follow-up survey of GEIH households with Venezuelan members, asks directly about the PPT and other documents; Round 8 (2025; n=6,443 Venezuelan-born adults) is used here. For Peru, INEI's ENPOVE 2022 (n=11,585), a dedicated survey of the Venezuelan population, records permit type and year of entry. Both reproduce the LAPOP cohort profiles closely (Section 5.2). Administrative context points the same way: Migración Colombia reports on the order of 1.9 million valid PPTs against an estimated stock of 2.8 million, implying aggregate coverage near the LAPOP estimate.

4 Empirical Strategy

Migrant–native gaps. For country c and outcome y, I estimate by weighted least squares

$$y_i = \alpha_c + \delta_c \, \text{Migrant}_i + \mathbf{x}_i' \boldsymbol{\gamma}_c + \varepsilon_i, \tag{1}$$

[1]PER: March 15th -April 28th, 2023. COL:May 16th - July 12th, 2023. While Fieldwork for the special survey was:COL September 18–December 7, 2024. PER: August 22–October 7, 2024

where $\mathbf{x}_i$ contains sex, age, education (harmonized 0–6 scale), and number of children. The regime contrast is $\delta_{COL} - \delta_{PER}$, estimated from a pooled specification with a Migrant$\times$Colombia interaction; robust (HC1) standard errors throughout.

Decomposing the cross-country migrant welfare gap. Among migrants, I trace the Colombia coefficient in nested WLS specifications of food insecurity—adding demographics, arrival cohort, documentation, and employment blocks on a constant sample—and complement this with a twofold Oaxaca–Blinder decomposition using pooled coefficients, which apportions the raw gap into contributions of endowment differences.

The registration closure as a coverage natural experiment. Colombia's RUMV closure differentially excluded recent arrival cohorts; Peru's 2023 process did not. I compare cohorts arriving 2016–2019 (unambiguously eligible in both countries) with 2022–2023 arrivals (post-deadline in Colombia), dropping the contaminated 2020–21 cohorts, in a difference-in-differences design:

$$\text{permit}_i = \beta_0 + \beta_1 \text{recent}_i + \beta_2 \text{COL}_i + \beta_3 (\text{recent}_i \times \text{COL}_i) + \mathbf{x}_i' \boldsymbol{\gamma} + \varepsilon_i. \tag{2}$$

β_3 measures the differential coverage shock. Identification requires that, absent the closure, cohort profiles of permit-holding would have evolved in parallel; a placebo cutoff inside the pre-period tests this. I report the analogous reduced form for food insecurity but do not construct instrumental-variables estimates from it: the outcome-side cohort profiles differ across countries even pre-closure, and cohort cells are small, so the welfare link is carried by the within-country permit penalty rather than by ratio estimators.

5 Results

5.1 Migrant–native gaps are larger under the generous regime

Table 1 reports adjusted gaps. Migrants in Colombia are 19.7 percentage points more food-insecure than comparable natives; in Peru the gap is 8.8 points. The difference-in-differences, $+10.8$ points (p=0.019), contradicts the de jure prediction. The formality penalty is large and essentially identical in the two countries (-21.1 vs. -18.8 points; DiD -2.4, p=0.63): nowhere did legal design buy migrants labor-market parity.

Table 1: Adjusted migrant–native gaps and cross-regime differences

	Migrant–native gap			
Outcome	Colombia (ETPV)	Peru (CPP)	Diff-in-diff	p (DiD)
Food insecurity	$+0.197$	$+0.088$	$+0.108$	0.019
	(0.034)	(0.032)	(0.046)	
Formal job (employed)	-0.211	-0.188	-0.024	0.628
	(0.040)	(0.033)	(0.050)	

Notes: Weighted LPMs; HC1 standard errors in parentheses. Controls: sex, age, education, number of children. n=5,090 (food insecurity), 2,392 (formality). Migrant surveys 2024; national baselines 2023.

5.2 The de facto coverage inversion

Figure 2 shows why. Among pre-2020 arrival cohorts, coverage is high in both countries (74–84% in Colombia, roughly 90% in Peru). For post-2021 cohorts the countries diverge spectacularly: coverage among migrants in Colombia falls to 38% (2022 arrivals) and 5% (2023 arrivals), while Peru's recent cohorts remain at 75–77%. In the pooled 2024 cross-section, 35% of migrants in Colombia hold no permit versus 14% in Peru—the de facto inversion of the de jure ranking. This gap is not an artifact of how the permit question is posed: VDQ62 records only documents actually *held*, with applications in progress captured separately as a reason for holding *no* permit (VDQ63), so pending cases count as undocumented and Peru's coverage is, if anything, understated.

The *composition* of coverage reveals why the two profiles diverge (Figure 3). Colombia operates a single de facto instrument: the PPT accounts for essentially all coverage, the older PEP having been folded into it, and no alternative document takes its place. When general registration closed, nothing caught the post-2021 cohorts, and the no-permit share rises to 62% (2022 arrivals) and 94% (2023 arrivals). Peru, by contrast, runs two instruments that hand off across cohorts: earlier arrivals are documented overwhelmingly through the carné de extranjería (57–78%), while the CPP—the instrument of the 2023 regularization process—carries the recent cohorts, rising to 38% of 2022 and 50% of 2023 arrivals. The document that keeps Peru's profile flat is thus precisely the one issued under D.S. 003-2023-IN, not carné holders carried forward from earlier waves.

Figure 4 establishes that this is not a LAPOP artifact. DANE's EPM Round 8 reproduces Colombia's cliff (no-document shares of 14–29% for pre-2022 cohorts rising to 55%, 77%, and 91% for 2022, 2023, and 2024 arrivals). INEI's ENPOVE, fielded in early 2022 *before* Peru's regularization round, shows Peru's recent cohorts at 33–36% coverage—which had recovered to ~75% by the 2024 LAPOP window. The two countries' trajectories are mirror images: Peru

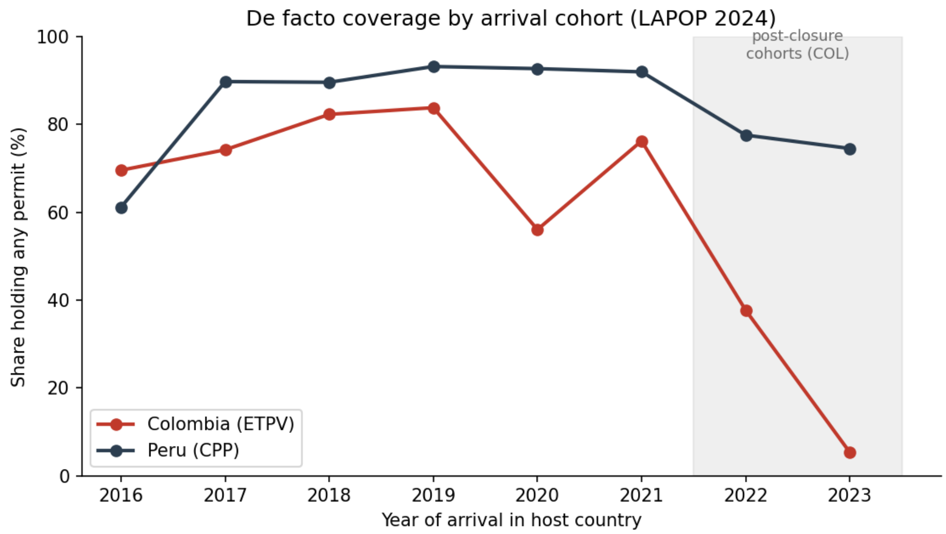

Figure 2: Share of Venezuelan migrants holding any migration permit, by year of arrival (weighted). LAPOP 2024 migrant surveys. Shaded region: cohorts arriving after Colombia's ETPV presence deadline and RUMV closure window; the 2020–21 cohorts (shown) cannot be cleanly assigned to eligibility and are excluded from the difference-in-differences analysis.

topped up coverage in 2023; Colombia shut registration in late 2023.

5.3 Corroboration from perceptions and stated reasons

Two further items in the migrant instruments corroborate that the inversion reflects policy-driven access rather than measurement or self-selection. First, perceived difficulty of obtaining documents traces the same cohort pattern on the *full* sample, sidestepping the small post-closure cells. Asked how hard it would be to access legal documents such as the PPT, carné, or cédula (VDQ26), migrants in the two countries respond almost identically through the 2021 cohort—roughly half calling it difficult—then diverge sharply: 77% and 72% of Colombia's 2022 and 2023 arrivals perceive access as difficult, against 57% and 29% in Peru (Figure 5). The 2023 gap—72% versus 29%—is wide enough to clear sampling error at the cohort level, unlike the permit-holding cliff itself. Recent Colombians experience access as closing; recent Peruvians, arriving into an active regularization, experience it as opening.

Second, the reasons the undocumented give for lacking a permit (VDQ63) point to administrative exclusion rather than choice (Table 2). Administrative and registry barriers—applications in process, lack of information, missing documentation, ineligibility, or no platform access—account for 73% of Colombia's undocumented and 57% of Peru's, while only 8.5% and 5.3% respectively report simply not being interested. The barriers most diagnostic of a closed registry

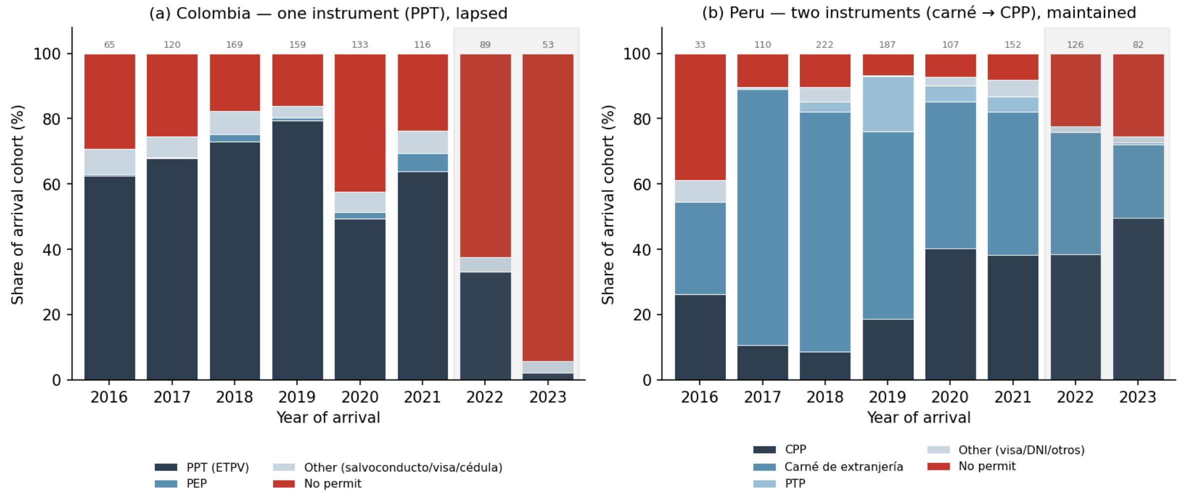

Figure 3: Permit type by arrival cohort (weighted, LAPOP 2024). Colombia's coverage rests on a single instrument (PPT) that lapsed for post-2021 cohorts; Peru's rotates from the carné de extranjería (earlier cohorts) to the CPP issued under the 2023 regularization (recent cohorts). Cell sizes shown above bars; shaded region marks post-closure cohorts in Colombia.

are concentrated in Colombia: 18% of its undocumented cite lack of information (against 1% in Peru) and 16% ineligibility under the rules (against 7%). Voluntary non-take-up is negligible in both countries; what differs is whether the state kept a channel open.

5.4 Documentation, employment, and the welfare gap

Does the coverage inversion matter for welfare? Within each country, migrants without permits are substantially more food-insecure than observably similar migrants with permits: $+10.5$ points in Colombia, $+11.8$ in Peru, $+10.3$ pooled (p=0.068), conditional on demographics, arrival cohort, and employment (Table 3, Panel A). The stability of this penalty across two very different institutional environments is itself informative: whatever the permit buys—the right to formal work, access to services, security from removal—it appears to buy roughly the same amount in both countries.

Panel B traces the cross-country gap in migrant food insecurity across nested specifications on a constant sample. The raw gap of $+11.4$ points falls to $+9.5$ with demographics, is untouched by arrival cohort ($+9.6$)—Colombia's migrants are *longer*-settled, so recency explains nothing—then falls to $+7.9$ (n.s.) adding documentation and to $+4.5$ (p=0.35) adding employment and household size. The Oaxaca–Blinder decomposition (Panel C) makes the accounting explicit: endowment differences explain 67% of the raw gap, with employment status contributing 32% and documentation 21%—the two largest single factors—followed by family

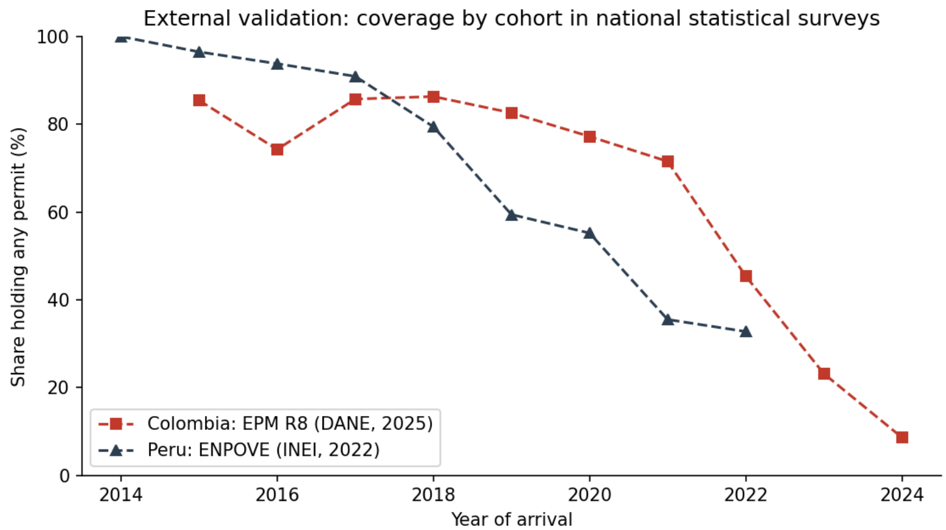

Figure 4: External validation. Colombia: share holding any document, EPM Round 8 (DANE, 2025; n=6,443 Venezuelan adults, expansion factors). Peru: share holding any permit by entry year, ENPOVE (INEI, 2022; n=11,585). ENPOVE predates Peru's 2023 regularization; LAPOP 2024 shows Peru's recent cohorts at 75–77% after it.

composition (11%). Only a third of the gap remains unexplained.

The employment margin deserves emphasis. Just 46% of migrants in Colombia were in paid work in the four weeks before the survey, against 62% in Peru, and being in paid work is associated with 19 points less food insecurity—the largest coefficient in the model. Colombia's welfare problem is thus twofold: fewer of its migrants hold permits, and fewer hold jobs. The formality penalty of Table 1 shows that legal design solved neither.

5.5 The registration closure as a natural experiment in coverage

Table 4 formalizes the cliff. Comparing unambiguously eligible cohorts (2016–19 arrivals) with post-deadline cohorts (2022–23), coverage falls 52 points in Colombia against 12 in Peru: a differential shock of -39.1 points ($p<0.001$). A placebo cutoff within the pre-period yields a precise zero for permits (-0.005, $p=0.96$), supporting parallel cohort profiles in coverage. The corresponding reduced form for food insecurity is positive but imprecise ($+11.6$ points, $p=0.30$): with only 140 post-closure observations in Colombia, the design is powered for coverage, not for consumption. I accordingly do not report instrumental-variables estimates; the welfare interpretation rests on the within-country permit penalty of Table 3, whose magnitude ($\sim$10 points) is consistent with the imprecise reduced form. Food-insecurity cohort profiles also fail a pre-period placebo, reinforcing the decision to treat welfare dynamics descriptively.

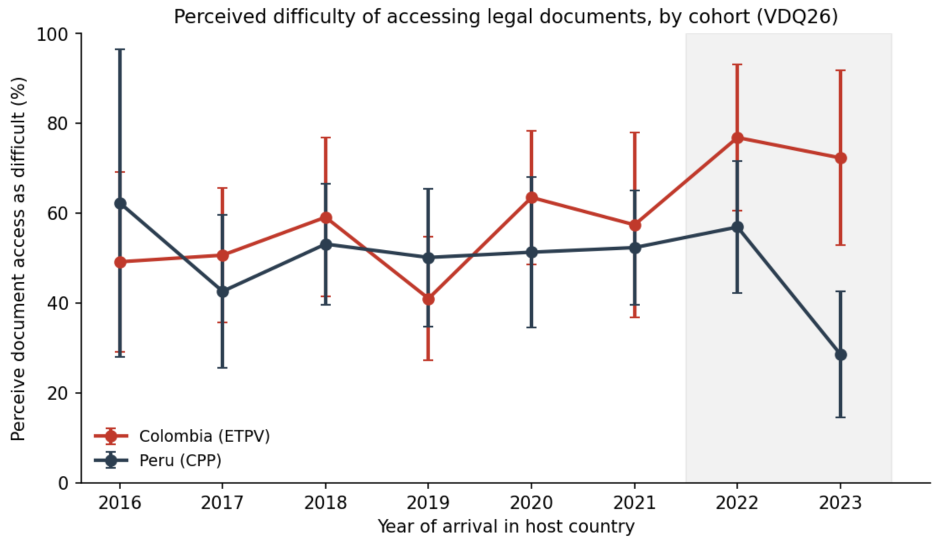

Figure 5: Share of migrants perceiving access to legal documents as difficult (VDQ26$\leq$ 2), by arrival cohort (weighted, 95% confidence intervals). Full sample; not conditioned on permit-holding. Shaded region marks post-closure cohorts in Colombia.

5.6 Robustness and heterogeneity

The pooled permit penalty is stable across estimators and definitions: $+10.3$ points (weighted LPM), $+7.3$ (unweighted LPM), $+7.3$ (probit average marginal effect), and a mirror-image -10.2 when documentation is defined as holding the flagship permit (PPT in Colombia; CPP/carné/PTP in Peru) rather than any permit. Heterogeneity in the adjusted cross-country gap (M4 specification) is concentrated exactly where the coverage-and-jobs account predicts: the Colombia disadvantage is large among the low-educated ($+16.6$ points, $p<0.05$) and essentially zero among the highly educated (-1.4); larger for women ($+10.6$) than men (0.0); and larger for post-closure arrivals ($+15.3$) than for pre-2022 cohorts ($+3.6$). The groups most exposed to informality and least able to navigate a closed registry are the ones driving the aggregate gap.

6 Conclusions and Policy Implications

Two facts organize this paper. First, judged against their own hosts, Venezuelan migrants fare no better under the hemisphere's most celebrated regularization regime than under its supposedly restrictive neighbor—and on food security they fare measurably worse. Second, the reason is not that legal status is worthless but that Colombia's program stopped reaching its population: general registration closed in November 2023, post-2021 cohorts are almost entirely undocumented, and by 2024 the "generous" regime covered a smaller share of its migrants than the

Table 2: Self-reported reason for holding no permit (undocumented migrants, weighted)

Reason (VDQ63)	Colombia	Peru
Application in process	14.1%	9.5%
Lacked information / didn't know how	18.2%	1.2%
No supporting documentation	21.2%	39.2%
Doesn't meet requirements	16.2%	6.8%
No electronic means	3.3%	0.3%
Not interested	8.5%	5.3%
Other	18.4%	37.6%
Administrative/registry barriers	**73.0%**	**57.1%**

Notes: Weighted shares; asked only of respondents holding no permit (n=285 Colombia, 129 Peru). Administrative/registry barriers sum the in-process, lack-of-information, no-documentation, ineligibility, and no-electronic-means categories.

"restrictive" one. Within both countries, holding a permit is associated with roughly 10 points less food insecurity; across countries, documentation and employment jointly account for the welfare gap. Regularization works where it reaches; it reached ever fewer.

The policy implications are direct. Evaluating migration regimes by statutory design misleads—what matters is maintained coverage and labor absorption. For Colombia, the results argue for reopening a general regularization channel: the marginal undocumented migrant is now a 2022–24 arrival who is disproportionately female, low-educated, jobless, and food-insecure. For the region, Peru's experience shows that periodic re-regularization is administratively feasible and keeps coverage from decaying as inflows continue. And for the evaluation literature, the Colombian case is a caution: the PEP and ETPV generated rightly influential evidence that amnesties improve migrant lives (Bahar et al., 2021; Ibáñez et al., 2025), yet program effects estimated on covered populations coexisted with a collapse in coverage itself. The binding margin moved from treatment effects to take-up.

Three extensions follow naturally. First, monthly GEIH microdata can power an event study of recent-arrival Venezuelans' labor outcomes around the November 2023 closure, supplying the well-identified welfare estimates this paper's cohort cells cannot. Second, the EPM's eight rounds (2021–2025) permit a coverage time series for Colombia that would date the decay precisely. Third, the LAPOP surveys' migration module opens a behavioral margin this paper set aside: only 38% of migrants in Colombia and 28% in Peru wish to remain in their host country, intentions predicted by perceived futures and belonging rather than by documentation—and the most food-insecure are the *least* likely to intend to leave, a mobility poverty trap with direct implications for onward migration through the hemisphere. Understanding whether papers without livelihoods can hold people—or whether livelihoods without papers can—is the natural

Table 3: Documentation and the cross-country welfare gap (migrant samples)

Panel A. Permit penalty: food insecurity on no-permit (full controls)		
	Coefficient	n
Colombia	$+0.105$ (0.071)	853
Peru	$+0.118$ (0.088)	864
Pooled (country FE)	$+0.103$ $(0.056)^{*}$	1,717
Panel B. Colombia coefficient across nested specifications (constant n=1,712)		
M0: raw	$+0.114$ $(0.047)^{**}$	
M1: + demographics	$+0.095$ $(0.046)^{**}$	
M2: + arrival cohort	$+0.096$ $(0.047)^{**}$	
M3: + no permit	$+0.079$ (0.050)	
M4: + employment, household size	$+0.045$ (0.048)	
Panel C. Oaxaca–Blinder (twofold, pooled coefficients): raw gap $+0.114$		
Explained	$+0.077$ (67% of gap)	
of which: employment	$+0.036$ (32%)	
of which: no permit	$+0.024$ (21%)	
of which: children	$+0.013$ (11%)	
Unexplained	$+0.037$ (33%)	

Notes: Weighted estimates; HC1 SEs. Full controls: sex, age, education, children, years in host country, paid work. $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{*}p < 0.10$. Documentation is self-reported and not randomly assigned; Panel A is an upper bound on the causal permit effect. Panel B's M4 conditions on employment, itself an outcome of legal status, and therefore understates the total role of policy.

next question.

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Table 4: Differential coverage shock from Colombia's registration closure (donut DiD)

	Any permit	Food insecurity
Recent (2022–23) × Colombia	-0.391^{***}	$+0.116$
	(0.102)	(0.112)
Placebo (fake cutoff 2018, pre-period only)	-0.005	-0.358^{***}
	[p=0.96]	[p=0.002]
Weighted cell means:		
Colombia 2016–19 → 2022–23	79.6% → 27.9%	47.0% → 55.9%
Peru 2016–19 → 2022–23	88.4% → 76.9%	41.7% → 39.6%
n	1,396	1,396

Notes: Weighted LPMs; HC1 SEs; controls: sex, age, education, children. Cohorts 2020–21 dropped (eligibility indeterminate given integer years-of-residence measurement and the January 2021 presence deadline). The failed food-insecurity placebo indicates non-parallel welfare cohort profiles pre-closure; coverage profiles are parallel. $^{***}p < 0.01$.

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A Appendix Tables

Table 5: Weighted sample characteristics, four LAPOP surveys

	Venezuelan migrants (2024)		National baseline (2023)	
	Colombia	Peru	Colombia	Peru
Female	0.52	0.47	0.50	0.50
Age (years)	34.8	34.6	39.8	39.0
Education (0–6)	3.49	4.00	3.82	4.37
Number of children	1.42	1.12	0.76	1.09
Years in host country	5.3	4.4	—	—
No migration permit	0.35	0.14	—	—
In paid work (4 weeks)	0.46	0.62	—	—
Food insecurity	0.53	0.41	0.29	0.31
Formal job (employed)	0.149	0.086	0.407	0.329
N	1,006	1,077	1,503	1,535

Notes: Each survey weighted by its own sampling weights. Education on the harmonized 0–6 EDRE scale. Formality among respondents in paid work.

Table 6: Variable definitions and sources

Variable	Definition (survey item)
Food insecurity	Household ran out of food for lack of money/resources, past 3 months (FS2; identical wording, all four surveys)
Formal job	Job carries pension contributions, among those in paid work (FORMAL)
No permit	Reports holding no migration permit/document (VDQ62COL/VDQ62PER = 0)
Main permit	PPT (Colombia); CPP, carné de extranjería, or PTP (Peru)
Paid work	In paid work during previous 4 weeks (VDQ52= 1)
Years in host	Total years lived in host country (VDQ2); arrival year = 2024−years
Education	Harmonized 0–6 attainment scale (EDRE)
External: Colombia	EPM Round 8 (DANE, 2025): PPT / no-document, arrival year, expansion factors
External: Peru	ENPOVE 2022 (INEI): permit type (P307), entry year (P303_ANIO), weights